

Groups

Definition 1.1: Let G be a non-empty set, equipped with a binary operation, that is, a "multiplication" map

$$\cdot : G \times G \longrightarrow G$$

Our notations will be

$$\cdot (g, h) =: g \bullet h$$

or simply gh if the name of the operation can be understood.

Definition 1.2: A set G , endowed with a binary operation $(\cdot)$ ($ie(G, \cdot)$), is a group if:

i) the operation is associative, that is

$$(\forall g, h, k \in G) \quad (g \cdot h) \cdot k = g \cdot (h \cdot k);$$

ii) there exists an identity element e_G for G , that is

$$(\exists e_G \in G)(\forall g \in G) : g \cdot e_G = g = e_G \cdot g;$$

iii) every element in G has an inverse with respect to $\cdot$, that is,

$$(\forall g \in G)(\exists h \in G) : g \cdot h = e_G = h \cdot g.$$

Example 1.3 The trivial group $G = \{e\}$.

Example 1.4 The following are groups under ordinary addition: $(\mathbb{Z}, +)$, $(\mathbb{Q}, +)$, $(\mathbb{R}, +)$, $(\mathbb{C}, +)$. The subset $\{+1, -1\}$ of $\mathbb{Z}$ is a group under multiplication.

Note that the above examples are commutative

Example 1.5 Consider the set of all $n \times n$ matrices with real entries. Under ordinary matrix multiplication, these form a group. This is an example of a non-commutative group. This is denoted by $GL_n(\mathbb{R})$

Commutative groups

Given a group $(G, \cdot)$ such that $(\forall g, h \in G) \quad g \cdot h = h \cdot g$, we say that the operation is commutative. We say that two elements g, h "commute" if $gh = hg$. In a commutative group, any two elements commute. Such groups are said to be abelian groups.

The notation used in treating abelian groups differs from that used for standard groups. The operation in an abelian group A is, as a rule, denoted by $+$ and is called addition. The identity is called 0_A and the inverse of an element $a \in A$ is denoted by $-a$.

Now in a standard group setting, the conventional power notation can be used $g^0 = e_G$ and for a positive integer n :

$$g^n = g \cdots g \quad (n\text{-times})$$

$$g^{-n} = g^{-1} \cdots g^{-1} \quad (n\text{-times})$$

On the other hand, in the abelian group setting the power notation is replaced by 'multiple' $0a = 0$ and for a positive integer n :

$$na = a + a + \cdots + a \quad (n\text{-times})$$

$$(-n)a = (-a) + \cdots + (-a) \quad (n\text{-times})$$

Order

Definition 1.6: An element g of a group G has finite order if $g^n = e$ for some positive integer n . In this case, the order $|g|$ is the smallest positive n such that $g^n = e$. If g does not have finite order, then $|g| = \infty$. By definition, if $g^n = e$ for some positive integer n , then $|g| \leq n$.

Lemma 1.7: If $g^n = e$ for some integer n , then $|g|$ is a divisor of n .

Proof: By definition of order, $n \geq |g|$, that is $n - |g| \geq 0$. Thus by the division algorithm $\exists 0 \leq r < |g|, m \in \mathbb{Z}$ such that $n = |g| \cdot m + r$. So that $r = n - |g| \cdot m \geq 0$. Note that

$$g^r = g^{n-|g|\cdot m} = g^n \cdot (g^{|g|})^{-m} = e \cdot e^{-m} = e$$

By definition of order, $|g|$ is the smallest positive integer such that $g^{|g|} = e$. Since r is smaller than $|g|$ and $g^r = e$, r cannot be positive, hence $r = 0$ necessarily. So that $0 = n - |g| \cdot m$. Thus we have $n = |g| \cdot m$, proving that n is indeed an integer multiple of $|g|$ as claimed.

Corollary 1.8: Let g be an element of finite order, and let $N \in \mathbb{Z}$. Then $g^N = e \iff N$ is a multiple of $|g|$.

Definition 1.9: If G is finite as a set, its order $|G|$ is the number of its elements; we write $|G| = \infty$ if G is infinite. note that $|g| \leq |G| \forall g \in G$. Indeed, this is vacuously true if $|G| = \infty$, if G is finite, consider the $|G| + 1$ powers

$$g^0 = e, g, g^2, g^3, \dots, g^{|G|}$$

of g . These cannot all be distinct, hence $(\exists i, j) 0 \leq i < j \leq |G|$ such that $g^i = g^j$ By Cancellations (That is multiplying on the right by g^{-i})

$$g^{j-i} = e,$$

Showing $|g| \leq (j - i) \leq |G|$

Proposition 1.10: Let $g \in G$ be an element of finite order. Then g^m has finite order $\forall m \geq 0$ and

$$|g^m| = \frac{\text{lcm}(m, |g|)}{m} = \frac{|g|}{\text{gcd}(m, |g|)}$$

Proof: The equality of the two numbers $\frac{\text{lcm}(m, |g|)}{m}$ and $\frac{|g|}{\text{gcd}(m, |g|)}$ follows from the elementary properties of gcd and lcm:

$$\text{lcm}(a, b) = \frac{ab}{\text{gcd}(a, b)} \forall a \text{ and } b$$

We need only to prove that $|g^m| = \frac{lcm(m, |g|)}{m}$. The order of g^m is the least positive integer d such that $g^{md} = e$, that is md is a multiple of $|g|$ (by corollary 1.8). In other words $m|g^m|$ is the smallest multiple of m which is also a multiple of $|g|$: $m|g^m| = lcm(m, |g|)$. Thus

$$\frac{lcm(m, |g|)}{m} = |g^m|$$

The rest of the results follows immediately. In general for commuting elements,

Proposition 1.11: If $gh = hg$, then $|gh|$ divides $lcm(|g|, |h|)$.

Symmetric Groups

Definition 1.12: A permutation of a set A is a bijective map $A \rightarrow A$.

Definition 1.13: Let A be a set. The symmetric group or group of permutations of A , denoted S_A , is the group of all bijective maps from A to itself under composition.

The group of permutations of the set $\{1, 2, \dots, n\}$ is denoted by S_n . The groups S_n are finitely very large—for example if $A = \{1, \dots, n\}$ then $|S_n| = n!$.

Notation: We will indicate an element $\sigma \in S_n$ by listing the effect of applying σ underneath the list $1, \dots, n$ as a matrix. Thus the elements e, f in S_2 may be denoted by:

$$e = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}, \quad f = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Using the same notation, S_3 consists of

$$\left\{ \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 2 & 1 & 3 \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 3 & 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 1 & 3 & 2 \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 3 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 2 & 3 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \right\}$$

The following describes how any two permutations are multiplied. For example:

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 2 & 1 & 3 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 3 & 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 3 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

We obtain the answer by tracing where each element maps: 1 maps to 3, and then 3 maps to 1. So the product sends 1 to 1. Continuing in this fashion we obtain the desired result.

Dihedral groups

A symmetry is a transformation which preserves a structure. The symmetries will naturally form groups. One context in which this notion may be visualised clearly is that of 'geometric figures' such as polygons in the plane.

The dihedral groups may be defined as these groups of symmetries for the regular polygons. Placing the polygon so that it is centered at the origin (thereby excluding translations as possible symmetries), we see that the dihedral group for a regular n -sided polygon consists of the n rotations by $2\pi/n$ radians about

the midpoint, and n distinct reflections about lines through the origin and a vertex or a midpoint of a side. Thus the dihedral group for a regular n -sided polygon consists of $2n$ elements. We will denote this group by D_{2n} .

There is a way to relate dihedral groups to symmetric groups by considering the fact that a symmetry of a regular polygon is determined by what happens to its vertices. Label the vertices of an equilateral triangle by 1, 2, 3. Then a counterclockwise rotation by an angle of $2\pi/3$ sends 1 to 2, 2 to 3, and 3 to 1. We associate to it the permutation:

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 2 & 3 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \in S_3$$

Such a labeling defines a function $D_6 \rightarrow S_3$ which is a group homomorphism, and in addition this function is injective. We can think of this as a faithful action of D_6 on the set of vertices.

Cyclic groups and Modular arithmetic

Let n be a positive integer. Consider the equivalence relation defined by $(a, b \in \mathbb{Z})$:

$$a \equiv b \pmod{n} \iff n|(b-a)$$

This is called congruence modulo n . The set of equivalence classes is often denoted by $\mathbb{Z}_n$, $\mathbb{Z}/(n)$, or $\mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z}$. When we write $[a]_n$ we mean the equivalence class of the integer a modulo n , or simply $[a]$ if no ambiguity arises.

Lemma 1.13: If $a \equiv a' \pmod{n}$ and $b \equiv b' \pmod{n}$, then

$$a + b \equiv a' + b' \pmod{n}$$

Proof: By hypothesis $n|(a' - a)$ and $n|(b' - b)$; therefore $\exists k, l \in \mathbb{Z}$ such that

$$(a' - a) = kn, \quad (b' - b) = ln$$

Then

$$(a' + b') - (a + b) = (a' - a) + (b' - b) = kn + ln = (k + l)n$$

Proving that n divides $(a' + b') - (a + b)$ as needed.

Thus we have a binary operation $+$ on $\mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z}$. Next we check that the resulting structure is a group. Associativity is inherited from $\mathbb{Z}$. Similarly, the identity is $[0]_n$ and the inverse is $-[a]_n = [-a]_n$. It is immediately checked that the resulting groups $\mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z}$ are commutative.

Proposition 1.14: The order of $[m]_n$ in $\mathbb{Z}_n$ is 1 if $n|m$, and more generally

$$|[m]_n| = \frac{n}{\gcd(m, n)}$$

Corollary 1.16: The class $[m]_n$ generates $\mathbb{Z}_n$ if and only if $\gcd(m, n) = 1$. A consequence of the above result is that if $n = p$ is a prime integer, then every non-zero class in the group $\mathbb{Z}_p$ generates it.

Note that there is a well-defined multiplication on $\mathbb{Z}_n$ given by $[a]_n \cdot [b]_n = [ab]_n$. However, this operation does not define a group structure on $\mathbb{Z}_n$; indeed, the class $[0]_n$ does not have a multiplicative inverse. For any positive integer n , denote by $(\mathbb{Z}_n)^*$ the subset of $\mathbb{Z}_n$ consisting of classes $[m]_n$ such that $\gcd(m, n) = 1$:

$$(\mathbb{Z}_n)^* := \{[m]_n \in \mathbb{Z}_n \mid \gcd(m, n) = 1\}$$

Proposition 1.17: Multiplication makes $(\mathbb{Z}_n)^*$ into a group.

Group Homomorphisms

Let $(G, \cdot_G)$ and $(H, \cdot_H)$ be two groups.

Definition 2.1: A map $\varphi : G \rightarrow H$ is a group homomorphism if $\forall a, b \in G$,

$$\varphi(a \cdot_G b) = \varphi(a) \cdot_H \varphi(b)$$

In other words, φ is a homomorphism if it 'preserves the structure'.

Proposition 2.2: Let $\varphi : G \rightarrow H$ be a group homomorphism. Then

1. $\varphi(e_G) = e_H$
2. $\forall g \in G, \varphi(g^{-1}) = \varphi(g)^{-1}$

Proof:

1. To prove the first item, we make use of the cancellation property and the definition of homomorphism. Since $e_G = e_G \cdot e_G$,

$$\varphi(e_G) = \varphi(e_G \cdot e_G) = \varphi(e_G) \cdot \varphi(e_G)$$

which implies $e_H = \varphi(e_G)$ by cancelling $\varphi(e_G)$ in H .

2. $\varphi(g^{-1}) \cdot \varphi(g) = \varphi(g^{-1} \cdot g) = \varphi(e_G) = e_H = \varphi(g)^{-1} \cdot \varphi(g)$ Thus $\varphi(g^{-1}) = \varphi(g)^{-1}$ by cancellation.

Examples of group homomorphisms

1. Given any two groups G, H , we can define a homomorphism $G \rightarrow H$ by sending every element of G to the identity e_H of H . We call this map the trivial morphism.

2. The exponential function is a homomorphism from $(\mathbb{R}, +)$ to the group $(\mathbb{R}^{>0}, \cdot)$ of positive real numbers, with ordinary multiplication as operation. Indeed, $e^{a+b} = e^a e^b$.

Proposition 2.3: Let $\varphi : G \rightarrow H$ be a group homomorphism, and let $g \in G$ be an element of finite order. Then $|\varphi(g)|$ divides $|g|$.

Isomorphisms

Definition 2.8: Two groups G, H are isomorphic if there is a bijective group homomorphism $\varphi : G \rightarrow H$. We write $G \cong H$.

Proposition 2.5: Let $\varphi : G \rightarrow H$ be a group homomorphism. Then φ is an isomorphism of groups if and only if it is a bijection.

Definition 2.9: A group G is cyclic if it is isomorphic to $\mathbb{Z}$ or to $\mathbb{Z}_n$ for some n .

Subgroups

Definition 3.1: Let $(G, \cdot)$ be a group. A subgroup $(H, \cdot)$ of G is a non-empty subset H which is also a group under the binary operation of G .

Proposition 3.2: A non-empty subset H of a group G is a subgroup if and only if

$$\forall (a, b \in H) : ab^{-1} \in H$$

Lemma 3.3: If $\{H_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in A}$ is any family of subgroups of a group G , then

$$H = \bigcap_{\alpha \in A} H_\alpha$$

is a subgroup of G .

Lemma 3.4: Let $\varphi : G \rightarrow G'$ be a group homomorphism, and let H' be a subgroup of G' . Then $\varphi^{-1}(H')$ is a subgroup of G .

Definition 3.5 (Kernel and Image): Every group homomorphism $\varphi : G \rightarrow G'$ determines two interesting subgroups:

- the kernel of φ , $\ker \varphi \subseteq G$; and
- the image of φ , $\text{im } \varphi \subseteq G'$.

The kernel of φ is the subset of G consisting of elements mapping to the identity in G' :

$$\ker \varphi := \{g \in G \mid \varphi(g) = e_{G'}\} = \varphi^{-1}(\{e_{G'}\})$$

Definition 3.6: A group G is finitely generated if there exists a finite subset $A \subseteq G$ such that $G = \langle A \rangle$.

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1 Group Structure on $G/\sim$

Proof:

We have already noted that the stated condition is necessary. [: 2] To prove it is sufficient, with the stated consequences, assume $a, a', g \in G$:

$$a \sim a' \Rightarrow ga \sim ga' \text{ and } ag \sim a'g \quad []$$

Then the operation $[g] \cdot [b] := [gb]$ [: 6] is well-defined and we have to verify that it defines a group structure on $G/\sim$. [: 7, 8]

- **Associativity:** For all $a, b, c \in G$, [: 9] associativity is inherited from the group G : [: 10]

$$([a] \cdot [b]) \cdot [c] = [ab] \cdot [c] = [(ab)c] = [a(bc)] = [a] \cdot [bc] = [a] \cdot ([b] \cdot [c]) \quad [: 11, 12, 13]$$

- **Identity:** The class $[e_G]$ is an identity with respect to this operation: $\forall g \in G$ [: 14]

$$[g] \cdot [e_G] = [ge_G] = [g], \quad [e_G] \cdot [g] = [e_Gg] = [g] \quad [: 15]$$

- **Inverse:** The class $[g^{-1}]$ is the inverse of $[g]$: [: 16]

$$[g^{-1}] \cdot [g] = [g^{-1}g] = [e_G], \quad [g] \cdot [g^{-1}] = [gg^{-1}] = [e_G] \quad [: 17]$$

Thus $G/\sim$ is indeed a group.

2 Cosets

In Proposition 4.3, we obtained the conditions: [: 21, 22]

$$(*) \quad (\forall g \in G) : a \sim b \Rightarrow ga \sim gb \quad [: 23]$$

$$(**) \quad (\forall g \in G) : a \sim b \Rightarrow ag \sim bg \quad [: 25]$$

These lead to a complete description of all compatible relations on a group G (where compatible means the equivalence relation respects the group operation). [: 30] Note that we have a group structure on $G/\sim$ only if both conditions are satisfied. [: 32]

2.1 Description of (*)

Proposition 4.4: Let $\sim$ be an equivalence relation on a group G satisfying (*). [: 34, 37] Then:

- The equivalence class of e_G is a subgroup H of G . [: 38]
- $a \sim b \iff a^{-1}b \in H \iff aH = bH$. [: 38, 51]

Proof:

Let $H \subseteq G$ be the equivalence class of the identity. $H \neq \emptyset$ as $e_G \in H$. [: 40, 42] For $a, b \in H$, we have $e_G \sim a$ and $e_G \sim b$, hence $b^{-1} \sim e_G$. [: 41, 42] Thus $ab^{-1} \sim a \sim e_G$ by transitivity, showing H is a subgroup. [: 44, 45, 46]

Next, assume $a, b \in G$ and $a \sim b$. Multiplying on the left by a^{-1} implies $e_G \sim a^{-1}b$, that is $a^{-1}b \in H$. [: 47] This implies $aH = bH$. [: 48, 51] Conversely, if $aH = bH$, then $a \in bH$, so $a^{-1}b \in H$, meaning $e_G \sim a^{-1}b$, which gives $a \sim b$. [: 54, 57, 58]

Definition 4.5: The **left-cosets** of a subgroup H in G are the sets aH for $a \in G$. The **right-cosets** of H are the sets Ha for $a \in G$. [: 68]

Proposition 4.6: If H is any subgroup of a group G , the relation $\sim_L$ defined by: [: 71, 73]

$$\forall a, b \in G : a \sim_L b \iff a^{-1}b \in H \text{ [: 74, 75]}$$

is an equivalence relation satisfying (*). [: 76]

3 Correspondence

Proposition 4.7: There is a one-to-one correspondence between subgroups of G and equivalence relations on G satisfying (*). [: 83, 84, 85, 86] For the relation $\sim_L$ corresponding to H , $G/\sim_L$ is the set of left-cosets aH . [: 87, 88]

Proposition 4.8: There is a one-to-one correspondence between subgroups of G and equivalence relations on G satisfying (**). [: 91, 92, 93] For the relation $\sim_R$ corresponding to H , $G/\sim_R$ is the set of right-cosets Ha . [: 94, 95, 96]

$$a \sim_R b \iff ab^{-1} \in H \iff Ha = Hb \text{ [: 99]}$$

4 Example 4.9

Let $G = S_3$, and let H be the subgroup:

$$H = \left\{ \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 2 & 1 & 3 \end{pmatrix} \right\} \text{ [: 116]}$$

Consider the element $\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 3 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$: [: 117]

$$\text{Left coset: } \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 3 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix} H = \left\{ \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 3 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 3 & 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \right\} \quad [: 117]$$

$$\text{Right coset: } H \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 3 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix} = \left\{ \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 3 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 1 & 3 & 2 \end{pmatrix} \right\} \quad [: 118]$$

This reflects the fact that the conditions (*) and (**) are different. [: 119, 120]

Quotient by normal subgroups

Let us recall the main point which is that an arbitrary subgroup H of G leads to two partitions of G , which are [cite: 1, 2, 5, 6]

$$G/\sim_L = \{aH \mid a \in G\}, \quad G/\sim_R = \{Ha \mid a \in G\}.$$

The relation $\sim_L$ satisfies (*) and $\sim_R$ satisfies (**). As we have seen earlier, these relations, and for that matter the corresponding partitions, are different. [cite: 8] The condition that $\sim_L$ and $\sim_R$ coincide translates into a condition on H : for such special subgroups (*) and (**) coincide. [cite: 9]

Proposition 4.10

The relations $\sim_L, \sim_R$ corresponding to subgroup H coincide if and only if H is normal. [cite: 10, 11, 12]

Proof

Two relations coincide if the corresponding partitions agree. So $\sim_L = \sim_R \iff$ left and right-cosets of H coincide [cite: 14]

$$\iff (\forall g \in G) : gH = Hg,$$

which is one of the equivalent conditions defining the notion of normal subgroup, thus the statement. [cite: 16]

The importance of the above results is that if H is normal, then the same equivalence relation $\sim = \sim_L = \sim_R$ corresponding to H satisfies both (*) and (**) and hence by Proposition 4.3, the quotient [cite: 17, 18]

$$G/\sim = \{aH \mid a \in G\} = \{Ha \mid a \in G\}$$

has a natural group structure.

Definition 4.11

Let H be a normal subgroup of a group G . The quotient group of G modulo H , denoted G/H , is the group $G/\sim$ defined above. In terms of (left-) cosets, the product in G/H is defined by [cite: 28, 29]

$$(aH)(bH) := (ab)H$$

The identity element $e_{G/H}$ of the quotient group G/H is the coset of the identity, $eG = H$. By Proposition 4.3 the quotient function

$$\pi : G \rightarrow G/H, \quad g \mapsto gH = Hg$$

is a group homomorphism.

Example

Recall the cyclic groups $\mathbb{Z}_n$. Indeed we defined $\mathbb{Z}_n$ as the set of equivalence classes in $\mathbb{Z}$ with respect to the congruence relation [cite: 45]

$$(\forall a, b \in \mathbb{Z}) : a \equiv b \pmod{n} \iff n \mid (b - a).$$

Now we recognize that $n \mid (b - a)$ is equivalent to $b - a \in n\mathbb{Z}$, which is the relation $\sim$ corresponding (in abelian notation) to the subgroup $n\mathbb{Z}$ of $\mathbb{Z}$. [cite: 52] This subgroup is normal since $\mathbb{Z}$ is abelian. [cite: 52] The congruence classes mod n are the cosets of the subgroup $n\mathbb{Z}$ in $\mathbb{Z}$. [cite: 52] Using abelian notation for cosets, we write [cite: 56]

$$[a]_n = a + (n\mathbb{Z}).$$

We see clearly that the operation defined on $\mathbb{Z}_n$ matches precisely the one defined above for quotient groups

Theorem 4.12

Let H be a normal subgroup of a group G . Then for every group homomorphism $\varphi : G \rightarrow G'$ such that $H \subseteq \ker \varphi$, there exists a unique homomorphism

$$\tilde{\varphi} : G/H \rightarrow G'$$

so that the diagram commutes.

Kernel is normal

If H is a normal subgroup, we have now constructed in great detail a group G/H and a surjective homomorphism $\pi : G \rightarrow G/H$. What is the kernel of π ? The identity of G/H is the coset H , which is H itself. [cite: 81, 82] So

$$\ker \pi = \{g \in G \mid gH = H\} = H.$$

Previously, we learnt that every kernel is a normal subgroup and now we have verified that every normal subgroup is in fact a kernel (of some group homomorphism).

Canonical Decomposition

Injective and surjective maps are so useful because they serve as the building bricks to build any function between two sets. Every set function may be viewed as the composition of a surjective map, followed by a bijective map, followed by an injective map. [cite: 93] We apply this result to groups and group homomorphisms.

Theorem 5.1

Every group homomorphism $\varphi : G \rightarrow G'$ may be decomposed as follows: [cite: 96, 97, 102]

$$G \xrightarrow{proj} G/\ker \varphi \xrightarrow{\cong} \text{im } \varphi \xrightarrow{incl} G' \text{ [cite: 100, 103, 104, 106, 108]}$$

where the isomorphism in the middle is the homomorphism induced by φ (as in Theorem 4.12). [cite: 109]

Theorem 5.1 makes one aware that to any group homomorphism $\varphi : G \rightarrow G'$, it can immediately be seen that $\frac{G}{\ker \varphi}$ identifies with a subgroup of G' . [cite: 110, 111, 116]

Corollary 5.2

Suppose $\varphi : G \rightarrow G'$ is a surjective group homomorphism. [cite: 117, 118, 121]
Then

$$G' \cong \frac{G}{\ker \varphi} \text{ [cite: 120]}$$

Proof

From Theorem 5.1, $\text{im } \varphi = G'$ since φ is surjective and so the result holds. [cite: 122]

Example 5.3

The cyclic group C_3 may be viewed as a subgroup of the dihedral group D_6 (the rotations of a triangle give a copy of C_3 inside D_6). [cite: 123, 124, 125, 128]
Then C_3 is normal in D_6 , and [cite: 126]

$$\frac{D_6}{C_3} \cong C_2. \text{ [cite: 127]}$$

We can check this by hand, noting that there is a surjective group hom. $D_6 \rightarrow C_2$ whose kernel is C_3 : [cite: 129, 130] send an element $\sigma \in D_6$ to the identity in C_2 if it does not flip the triangle (this is exactly the case when $\sigma \in C_3$), and send the element to the other element in C_2 if it does. [cite: 130] Then by Corollary 5.2 we obtain the desired results. [cite: 131]

Subgroups of Quotients

The lattice of subgroups of a quotient G/H can be described explicitly in terms of the lattice of subgroups of the group G : [cite: 132, 133, 134] keep the part of the lattice of subgroups of G corresponding to subgroups which contain H . [cite: 134]

Example 5.4

We demonstrate the effect of this operation on the lattice of subgroups of $C_{12} \cong \mathbb{Z}/12\mathbb{Z}$ (labeled by generators) after quotienting by $H = \langle [6] \rangle \cong C_2$: [cite: 135, 136, 137]

The result matches the lattice of subgroups of $C_6 \cong C_{12}/C_2$. Note: As an exercise show that if $H \subseteq K$ are subgroups of a group G and H is normal in G , then H is normal in K . [cite: 147]

Proposition 5.5

Let H be a normal subgroup of a group G . Then for every subgroup K of G containing H , K/H may be identified with a subgroup of G/H . [cite: 148] The function

$$\alpha : \{\text{subgroups } K \text{ of } G \text{ containing } H\} \rightarrow \{\text{subgroups of } G/H\} \text{ [cite: 150]}$$

defined by $\alpha(K) = K/H$ is a bijection preserving inclusions.

Proof

The group K/H consists of the cosets $aH \in G/H$ with $a \in K$, and in this way it is a subset (and obviously a subgroup) of G/H . [cite: 152, 155] It is also true that if $H \subseteq K \subseteq L$ then $\alpha(K) = K/H \subseteq L/H = \alpha(L)$; [cite: 155] and so α preserves inclusions. [cite: 156] Next we verify that α is a bijection and to do this it suffices to write down an inverse function [cite: 157]

$$\beta : \{\text{subgroups of } G/H\} \rightarrow \{\text{subgroups } K \text{ of } G \text{ containing } H\}. \text{ [cite: 161]}$$

Let K' be a subgroup of G/H ; define $\beta(K')$ to be the subset of G : [cite: 162]

$$K := \pi^{-1}(K') = \{a \in G \mid aH \in K'\}.$$

where $\pi : G \rightarrow G/H$ is the canonical projection. Then K is a subgroup of G and contains H since $H = \pi^{-1}(e)$ and $e \in K'$. [cite: 165, 166] Next we show that α and β are inverses of each other. [cite: 167, 170, 171] Indeed

$$\beta(K/H) = \pi^{-1}(K/H) = \{a \in G \mid \pi(a) \in K/H\} = \{a \in G \mid aH \in K/H\} = \{a \in G \mid a \in K\} = K.$$

So $(\beta \circ \alpha)(K) = K$. On the other hand taking $\beta(K') = K$, [cite: 177]

$$\alpha(K) = K/H = \pi(K) = \pi(\pi^{-1}(K')) = K'. \text{ [cite: 178]}$$

Thus $(\alpha \circ \beta)(K') = K'$.

The correspondence preserves normal subgroups. The following statement is usually known as the third isomorphism theorem: [cite: 179, 180]

Proposition 5.6

Let H be a normal subgroup of G and let N be a subgroup of G containing H . [cite: 181, 183] Then N/H is normal in G/H if and only if N is normal in G ,

and in this case [cite: 184, 185]

$$\frac{G/H}{N/H} \cong \frac{G}{N}.$$

Proof

If N is normal, then consider the projection $\pi : G \rightarrow G/N$. [cite: 187, 188] The subgroup H is contained in N , which is the kernel of this homomorphism, [cite: 190] so we obtain by Theorem 4.12 an induced homomorphism $\mu : G/H \rightarrow G/N$. [cite: 191, 194]

$$\ker \mu = \{gH \in G/H \mid \mu(gH) = N\} = \{gH \in G/H \mid gN = N\} = \{gH \in G/H \mid g \in N\} = N/H. \text{ [cite: 199, 200]}$$

The subgroup N/H of G/H is the kernel of this homomorphism; therefore it is normal. [cite: 202] Conversely, if N/H is normal in G/H , consider the composition [cite: 203, 205]

$$G \xrightarrow{\pi} G/H \xrightarrow{\tilde{\pi}} \frac{G/H}{N/H}. \text{ [cite: 207]}$$

The kernel of this homomorphism [cite: 208]

$$\ker(\tilde{\pi} \circ \pi) = \{g \in G \mid \tilde{\pi}(\pi(g)) = N/H\} = \{g \in G \mid \tilde{\pi}(gH) = N/H\} = \{g \in G \mid gH \in N/H\} = \{g \in G \mid g \in N\} = N.$$

Furthermore, this homomorphism is surjective; hence the stated isomorphism $\frac{G/H}{N/H} \cong G/N$ follows from Corollary 5.2. [cite: 211, 212]

HK/H and $K/(H \cap K)$

In the previous section, we dealt with two nested subgroups $H \subseteq K$ of a group G . [cite: 213, 214, 215] We will now consider the case when two subgroups, H and K , are not nested. [cite: 216, 220] If H and K are two subgroups of a group G , [cite: 221] then

$$HK = \{hk \mid h \in H, k \in K\} \text{ [cite: 222]}$$

is a subset. [cite: 223] Whenever G is commutative, then HK is a subgroup of G . [cite: 223, 224, 227] Another instance where HK is a subgroup is when one of the subgroups is normal. [cite: 228, 229] The following is usually called the second isomorphism theorem. [cite: 229, 230]

Proposition 5.7

Let H and K be subgroups of a group G , and assume that H is normal in G . [cite: 231, 232, 233] Then

1. HK is a subgroup of G , and H is normal in HK ; [cite: 235, 236]

2. $H \cap K$ is normal in K , and [cite: 238]

$$\frac{HK}{H} \cong \frac{K}{H \cap K}. \text{ [cite: 239]}$$

Proof

To verify that HK is a subgroup of G when H is normal, note that HK is the union of all cosets Hk , with $k \in K$; that is, ... [cite: 244, 245, 246, 247]